CHAPTER – 3

Ā*STIKA DARŚANAS*

3.0 Introduction

In Indian Philosophical perspective theory of cognition or methods of acquiring awareness are important. In Jñāna Mīmāmsa or epistemology various terms such as sensation, perception, awareness, inference, verbal cognition, memory etc. are used to denote Jñāna. Etymologically the term Jñāna contains the sense of knowledge. It is formed from the root Jña meaning to know. Prama (valid knowledge) is reality revealed by true knowledge. Pramāṇa is the instrument by which Prama is created.

According to the view point of the Nyāya philosophers valid knowledge is asaṅdigha (certain) and yathartha (true) presentation of an object. The Vaiśeṣika Darśana believes that 'non contradictionness' is the mark of valid knowledge. Saṅkhya Darśana considers knowledge as having the qualities like undoubted, real, not known before object apprehended by buddhi.

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(Saṅkhya- tattva- kaumudi kārika – 4 Vacaspati Miśra)

Bhattamīmāsa holds that valid knowledge is knowing an unknown real object and excludes memory from it. But according to Prābhākara Mīmāmsa experience is valid knowledge.

अनुभूतिः प्रमाणं सा स्मृतेरन्यः |

(Prabhakara- pañcika by salika natha)

Advaita Vedānta defines valid knowledge (pramā) as knowledge that is uncontradicted.

यत्र स्मृतिव्यावृत्त प्रमात्वं, □□□□□□□□□□□□ □□□□ज्ञ□□र□□□

(Vedānta paribhāṣa by Dharmarajadhvārindra p.4)

Vacaspathi Misra's definition considers as knowledge only that knowledge which is not known previously and not contradicted.

आबाधितमनधिगतमसन्दिग्ध बोधजनकत्वमपि प्रमाणत्वं प्रमाणम् |

(Bhā-1/1/4)

Buddhist Darśanas view as valid knowledge only that which is capable of successfully revealing an object.

प्र□□□ज्ञ□□प्र□□ |

(NBT, p.4)

The Jaina philosophers of India regarded definiteness as the distinguishing feature of valid knowledge.

Thus it can be ascertained that pramā or valid knowledge is true and definite knowledge of a new fact.

Pramāṇa is a term that denotes the means for the materialization of the Pramā or valid knowledge. So it can be said that Pramāṇa is the operative cause of Pramā.

प्रमाणं करणं प्रमा

(Vedānta Paribhāṣa)[1]

The number of the Pramāṇās differ according to the belief of the different schools of Indian philosophy. According to the Nyāya school Pramāṇās are four such as Pratyakṣa, Anumāna, upamāna and śabda. The vedānta school and the bhatta Mīmāmsakas recognize six Pramāṇas adding Arthapatti (presumption) and Anupalabdi (non apprehension or negation).

Pramā is caused by Pramāṇa and hence Pramāṇa stands for yadhārthajñāna or Pramā - karaṇatva. Kumarila Bhatta uses the terms Pramā and Pramāṇa for valid knowledge and validity respectively.[1]

3.1 *Pramāṇas:* The sources of Cognition

Pramāṇas are the means of knowing, in Indian Philosophy. They are the sources of valid knowledge. In order to establish a right knowledge there should be some source of it.[2] This concept of the means of a right cognition is recognized by various systems of Indian Philosophy. However the different systems have their own concepts of the means of knowledge. So it is natural that there are opposition or criticism against the generally accepted views on Pramāṇa. For instance, one of the most well known philosophers of Buddhism, Nagarjuna, in his writings attacks the principles of Pramāṇa so that they are called Pramāṇa- vidhavamsana.[3] Later other philosophers like Sri Harsha and Citsukha also followed the path of Nagarjuna. [4]

Perhaps the earliest treatise dealing with the qualities and importance of pramāṇa is the Nyāyasūtra of Gautama. It is also possible to argue that the whole edifice of Nyāya Darśana is built on the foundation of pramāṇa. Gautama observed that for the right knowledge about the universe the nature of the sixteen categories of padārtha is to be understood properly. Among the sixteen categories pramāṇa is mentioned as the first. In the second chapter of the Nyāyasūtra Gautama provides an explanation of the pramāṇa. Vatsyayana in his Bhaṣya introduces the pramāṇa and defined it. He observes that one can comprehend an object

only with the help of the pramāṇa. Only after understanding, it can be accepted or rejected as good or bad, which activity is called pravṛtti. Gautama considers pramāṇa as one factor that leads to the knowledge of the good, but Vāsyāyana is of the view that the right knowledge of the categories is not possible. pramāṇa is only a tool for the right awareness, but the validity of the awareness cannot be ascertained. In other words, the categories can be known with the help of Pramāṇa only. For that the right knowledge of pramāṇa itself is essential. If whatever gives awareness is a pramāṇa the sources of errors can also be a pramāṇa. Thus Vāsyāyana ascertains that it is not possible to conclude the validity of pramāṇa. Vāsyāyana therefore points out that the validity of pramāṇa can be ascertained only by inference.

"Pramāṇa to artha pratipattam" means that the cognition or awareness of an object arrived at through a pramāṇa is valid understanding. If only an object is known with the help of pramāṇa, the facts relating that object become true or fruitful. An activity based on a false pramāṇa (pramāṇabhāṣa) cannot become fruitful. The constant connection of the pramāṇa with an object is called pramāṇya which is the valid quality of the pramāṇa.

Knowledge arrived through a pramāṇa leads one to a successful activity. Hence it is true that pramāṇa is connected with the object it

indicates. Vāsyāyana offers these arguments to defend the validity of pramāṇa.

A pramāṇa is considered the instrument for acquiring an awareness or knowledge. It is therefore an upalabdhi [5], Udyotakara's definition of pramāṇa is that it is the cause of awareness or upalabdi-hetu. All kinds of awareness, whether valid or false are included under upalabdhi. It is meaningless to consider every awareness causing instrument as a pramāṇa. Therefore the definition of pramāṇa needs a change. The term arthavat is to be added to it. In other words, the instrument causing the awareness can be considered a pramāṇa only if it produces an awareness which has connection with its object.

Jayantha Bhatta holds the view that 'valid' knowledge should be something different from mere doubt. (asamn digdha)[6] In his tattvakaumudi Vacaspati Misra also shares the same view on the definition of 'valid' knowledge.

Various schools of philosophers of India have excluded memory (smṛti) from the category of valid knowledge Bhaṭṭa Mīmāmsa considers valid knowledge as primary and original knowledge. [7]

According to Nyāya Philosophy the instruments of valid knowledge are four –viz. pratyakṣa, Anumāna, Upamāna and Sabdha. There is no

possibility of including a fifth pramāṇa. So memory (smṛiti) cannot be considered a pramāṇa. [8]

The Jaina Philosophers believe that the main function of pramāṇa is to remove ignorance (ajñāna). Only knowledge or jñāna can remove ignorance. So pramāṇa is that knowledge which reveals both the self and the non- self. [9] Jayanta Bhatta points out some inconsistencies in the view point of the Jainas. His basic objection is that cognition cannot be considered as an instrument, but only the result. [10] An instrument, and the result produced by it are different. Pramāṇa is only the instrument that causes awareness, so the Jaina view that it is knowledge or cognition, which is actually the result of the action of the instrument, is wrong.

Jayanta's view is that knowledge or cognition is the result of the aggregate of the instruments. Each pramāṇa acts as an instrument to knowledge. For instance, Jayanta says that perception (pratyakṣa), inference (anumāna) comparison (upamāna) verbal testimony (sabda) is factors of the instrument which creates the awareness or cognition of knowledge.

Jayanta Bhatta also rejects the definition of pramāṇa given by the Buddhists, and asserts that pramāṇa is right knowledge. According to the Buddhist Philosophy the right knowledge is that which is not contradicted (avisamvādaka). [11] A pramāṇa only reveals the nature of an object. This

indication helps to attain the desirable and to avoid the undesirable. False knowledge revealed by pramāṇa is contradicted by experience.[12] Buddhist view rejects anumāna (inference) also as it is illusory and only a mental construction.

Jayanta Bhaṭṭa strongly attacks the position of the Buddhists. He points out that in the Buddhist view all things are momentary. Indication and attainment occur in different moments. So they can refer to different objects. Jayanta objects to the Buddhist point of view on perception as well as inference. He observes that the Buddhist definition of pramāṇa is narrow (avyāpaka). It does not apply to all the objects of indifference.

3.2 The Theoretical Base of *Āstika pramāṇas*

The Āstika Darśanas of India rely on the authority of the Indian scriptures like the vedas, the Upaniṣads and the sacred books like the Bhagavad Gita. There are four vedas, each of which contains three divisions such as the Samhitas, the brahmaṇas and the Āraṇyakas. The Upaniṣads which are about 108 in number are parts of the Āraṇyakas or treatises composed by the sages of ancient India who lived in their forest hermitages.

The religious thoughts of India passed through different stages of polytheism, henotheism, monotheism, and monism. Reality is conceived as one, which is manifested in different ways.

एकं सत् विप्रा बहुधा वदन्त्यग्निं यमं

मातरिश्वानमाहुः | (Ṛgveda; 164, 46)

That one (tad ekam) was later identified with the Ātman or Bhahman in the Upaniṣads. The signs of monism found in the Ṛgveda later developed into the monism of the Upaniṣads. The Ultimate Reality was taken as Brahma the infinite, eternal omniscient pure spirit or universal consciousness. The spatial and temporal world was considered the manifestation of this parabrahma, which is impersonal, in determinate and Absolute or the Ultimate Reality. Personal God or Iśvara is also considered the Lord of Karma, the creator, the preserver and the Destroyer of the world, who is also the controller and the moral controller or Governor of lives.

3.3 Prama and Pramaṇa

Buddhist philosophers of ancient India had the conviction that the truth behind knowledge was its practical value. Therefore they defined true cognition as knowledge which reveals that an object serves some purpose. They called this aspect of knowledge artha or prayojana. This view is similar to the western view of pragmatism. The practically useful

knowledge was called pramā and the instrument or means of arriving at such knowledge was termed pramāṇa.

Indian theories of knowledge consider pramā and pramāṇa as two basic concepts. The Advaita school follows the theory that the truth of knowledge should not be contradicted. (ab ādhitatva). They argue that even a false cognition may provide fulfilment. Therefore in their view point the pragmatic concept is not true. It is also necessary that the content of truth should be a new one. Dharmarājadhvarindra's definition of pramā gives emphasis to memory and novelty essential to valid knowledge. [13]

According to the Mīmāmsakas knowledge occurs when the knower and known combine together. Pramā is valid cognition which cannot be produced falsely. Therefore they do not regard Pramā as smṛti.

Kumarila Bhatta considers cognition as a means of valid knowledge or pramāṇa as it is anubhūti. (Apprehension). Prabhakara Mīmāmsaka also considers apprehension or anubhuti as district from recollection and a means of valid cognition. Prabhakara identified pramāṇa with prama as valid cognition. In fact Prabhakara and Kumarila Bhatta share common views as to the nature of valid knowledge. Both Prabhakara and Kumarila Bhatta hold recollection or meaning as valid knowledge,

According to the philosophy of Saṁkya, pramāṇa is the mode of intellect or buddhi which assumes the form of an object. Jayanta Bhatta thinks that this ideas is clearly related to that of the Budhists. In Nyāya Darśana, and the related Vaiśeṣika system buddhi and jñāna are synonymous. The Nyāya view of jñāna is quite opposite to the Saṅkhya view of jñāna as well as that of vedānta. Naiyāyikas definedpramā as Yathārthanubhava. They consider pramā as Yathārthanubhava. They consider pramā as a on- recollective cognition or anubhava. The Naiyāyikas regard cognition as true if it is arthāvyābhicāri. [14]

Prakāra kānubhava which means a non collection cognition, the content of which consists of a property which actually qualifies the thing which appears as the subject of that cognition is true.

3.4 Pram*āṇa: Epistemological structure*

Epistemology is the most important part of philosophy because it deals with the acquisition and nature of knowledge. Since pramāṇas are the basic sources or means of acquiring awareness or knowledge, they occupy higher importance in Indian darśanas. About the requirement of some source or means of right cognition all systems of philosophy share same views,. Their difference of opinion arises only as to the number and nature of the pramāṇas.

The term pramā signifies valid knowledge. The Nyāya school of philosophy in India defined pramā as certain and faithful presentation of an object.

तद्वति तत् प्रकारको अनोभवो यतारतः

□□ प्र□□□न□□□// (Tarkasangraha) [15]

Viswanatha, a Naiyayika Philosopher defined pramā as

bhrama- bhinna. [16]

Gangesa, in his tattvacintamani defined pramā as

यत्र यदास्ति तत्र तस्या नुबव प्रमा //

(Tattva Cintamaṇi, p.401)

Vaiśeṣika Darśana considers certainty (the absence of doubt), non contradictoriness, and definiteness as the characteristics of pramā,.

Praśastapāda, in his bhāṣya on Vaiśeṣika sūtra differentials knowledge into vidya and avidya, which are pramā and apramā respectively.

The Saṅkhya definition of pramā is cittavṛtti which is undoubted, real and not known before nature of an object.

Pramāṇa is a term which denotes a means of valid knowledge. The instrument of valid knowledge is invariably connected with the object. In

fact, the souce of pramā is pramāṇa. Pramāṇa is defined as the karaṇa (the extra ordinary cause) of a pramā (right knowledge). A karaṇa (cause) has been defined as the invariable and un conditional antecedent of an effect

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(Tarkasamgraha) [17]

All schools of Indian Philosophy are of the same view regarding the meaning and function of the pramāṇa. They agree that pramāṇa is the basis of valid knowledge (pramā). But there is great divergence of opinion on the number of pramāṇa, and its definition.

3.4.1 Prathyakṣa

Pratyakṣa (perception) is definite cognition produced by the contact between sense and object. According to Nyāya Sūtra (1.1.4) it is true or without error. Both Indian and Western Systems of Philosophy accept it as the most important means of cognition. There is a feeling of directness or immediacy of the knowledge received by perception. So Indian philosophy defines it as Sākṣāt pratīti (immediate cognition).

When there is the sense – object contact present it is termed laukika prathyakṣa. If the object is not present to the sense, but is conveyed to sense through unusual medium, it is called alaukika

pratyakṣa. There are six kinds of laukika perception, namely sāmānyalakṣaṇa, jñānalakṣaṇa and yogaja.

Sāmānyalakṣaṇa perception is cognition based on the universal (sāmānya) quality of a group. jñānalakṣaṇa is cognition or perception made due to the existence of a preconceived knowledge or Jñāna Yogaja perception is intuitive knowledge by Yogis who have super natural power of knowing part, future etc. through Yogabhyāsa.

Ordinary perception or laukika prathyakṣa is of two kinds, namely, nirvikalpa (indeterminate) and Savikalpa (determinate). The Nyāya Darśana includes pratyabhijña (recognition) also to these two as an ordinary perception. Nirvikalpa perception is called indeterminate because in it cognition occurs without any explicit inter relation or characterization of the object. Savikalpa perception occurs when the object is judged as possessing some character. Pratyabhijña is recognition of some object as what was cognized before.

All systems of Indian philosophy have not recognized these divisions of perception in the same way. On the whole the Vaiśeṣika the Saṅkhya and the Mīmāmsa systems accept the view of the Nyāya Darśana. However, the Buddhist, and the Advaita Vedānta systems hold different views.

3.4.2 Anumāna

Anumāna is accepted as a valid means of knowledge by all systems of Indian philosophy except the Darśana of Cārvāka. It is a process of reasoning through inference arriving at some knowledge on the basis of other previously acquired knowledge. The term anumāna consists of two parts 'anu' which means 'after' and 'mana' which means an 'apprehension. Thus anumāna signifies knowledge which follows some other knowledge. It is the knowledge of an object due to a previous knowledge of some sign."

The Buddhist point of view looks at Anumāna from the angle of the principle of identity. According to Kanāda, the founder of the Vaiśeṣika Darśana Anumāna is the knowledge produced from the pratyakṣa which is connected with something else. Anumāna is defined as the knowledge of one term of a relation which is not perceived, but invariably connected with it', by the Sāmkhya, the Mīmāmsa and the vedānta systems.

Nyāya Darśana looks Anumāna as means of knowledge of something and recognises the relation with the object inferred. Paribhāsākāra considers Anumāna as the instrument of inferential cognition.

Anumiti karaṇam anumāna. According to Advaita Vedānta there are two type of Anumāna viz,, Svārthānumāna and pararthanumāna. This distinction is accepted by the Naiyāyikas also. When one infers for himself from a sign it is svārthānumāna and if the inference is done for somebody else it is parārthānumāna. The Advaita and Mīmāmsaka School do not accept the view point of the Naiyāyikās on the nature of parārthānumāna.

Based on anumāna or inference the Advaita Darśana proves the unreality of the universe other than Brahman.

"Whatever other than Brahman is unreal." In his 'Anumāna pariccheda' Dharmarājadharindra accepts the validity of anumāna as an independent source of knowledge. He states that there are three levels of existence (satta) viz. paramarthikasatta Vyavahārikasatta and prātibhāsikasatta, (the real existence, pragmatic existence, and nallucinnational existence). It could prove the unreality of the universe with the modified definition of unreality based on pāramārthikatva.

3.4.3 Upamāna

The philosophical term upamāna is recognised as a means of valid knowledge. It denotes the relation between a word and an object or a concept through the intermediary of similarity. The knowledge conveyed to the mind due to the similarity or its absence to another object is due to

upamāna. The word is derived from 'upa' and 'māna' which means 'similarity and 'cognition' respectively. Hence upamāna is knowledge of sāmīpya or similarity between two things.

The Nyāya, Mīmāmsa and the Advaita vedānta accepted Upamāna as a source of valid knowledge, but other systems of philosophy rejected it. According to Gautama's Nyāya sūtra upamāna is a way of proving something through something else which shares qualities with it.

प्रसिद्धसाधर्म्यात्साध्यसाधनम् उपमानम् | [18]

Vātsyāyana accepts upamāna as authoritative statement that conveys similarity, and Uddyotakara recognises it as the knowledge based on similarity.

According to the Nyāya darśanas upamāna is the source of knowledge of relation between samjñin or word and its denotation.

The Vaiśeṣika system accepts the pramāṇas pratyakṣa and Anumāna, but reduces upamāṇa to a category of a category of Anumāna. It is not accepted as an independent source of knowledge. There is no reference of Upamāna in the Vaiśeṣika sūtra. Prasasthapāda and Paribhāṣakāra also deny the status of a pramāṇa to Upamāna.

The Sāmkhya-yoga Darśanas also consider Upamāna as a form of Anumāna. They do not recognize it as independent source o knowledge.

In Sāṁkhya- kārika only Pratyakṣa, Anumāna and Sabda are recognized. Upamāna is considered as a means of śabda or verbal testimony.

Advaita vedānta, like the mīmāmsa system rejects the view of sāṁkhya Darśanas and gives independent status to upamāna. However, other vedānta schools do not accept this view. Viśiṣta advaita Darśanas includes upamāna under perception, inference or sabda according to the context. The dvaitha school of vedānta does not consider Anumāna as an independent source of knowledge. Mādhavācārya states that Upamāna is a form of inference.

3.4.4 *Śabda (Āgama)*

Advaita vedānta considers śabda or Āgama pramāṇas. The mīmāmsakas also give prominence to śabda or Āgama pramāṇa as a source of valid knowledge. Other schools of thought in Indian Philosophy except Cārvāka Darśanam accept the importance of this pramāṇa. The Budhist Darśana reduces Āgama or śabda the status of pramāṇa, and includes it under Anumāna. The Vaiśeṣika school denies Śabda the status of a Pramāṇa, and includes it under Anumāna. The Ācārya of Nyāya school, Gautama considers śabda as the fourth means of valid knowledge. In Nyāya sūtra it is stated: āptopadeśa śabda (Nyāya - Sūtra. 1.1.7). In other words, śabda is the upadeśa of an āpta (reliable person). The same

point of view is shared by Vaiśeṣika school also. Mīmāmsaka philosophers state that the utterance of a divine person is acceptable.

Kumārila Bhaṭṭa does not accept the Nyāya point of view regarding Āgama or śabda pramāṇa. He says that śabda is only verbal knowledge brought about by the meaning of words

According to the Nyāya Darśana the vedas are the words of God, and hence they are means of valid knowledge. The Mīmāmsakas also accept the vedas as free from error. The Paribhāṣakāra, like the Mīmāmsa school of philosophers believe in the potential of the word power. (Sabda sakti) which is the direct relation of words with their meanings. From the śabda of the word used we can infer the śakti present in them based on the verbal knowledge produced by them.

3.4.5 Arthāpathi

The word arthāpathi can be explained as presumption, supposition, implication or assumption. It is different from inference, (Anumāna) Āgama (śabda or verbal authority) and upamāna (comparison). Arthāpathi refers to knowledge derived at by means of imagination.

The philosophers of Nyāya Darśana do not accept Arthāpathi as a valid pramāṇa. They reduce it as a kind of anumāna .

The sāṁkhya Darśana also explains arthāpathi as a kind of anumāna. The Vaiśeṣika also printout that presumption (arthāpathi) is a variety of anumāna. However, the Mīmāmsakas hold a different view. They argue that such knowledge is not anumāna, since there can be contradiction in the presumption. Hence they give independent status to arthāpathi as a valid source of knowledge or pramāṇa.

The Vaiśeṣika Darśana holds that Arthāpathi as a valid source of knowledge or pramāṇa.

The Vaiśeṣika Darśana holds that Arthāpathi or presumption is a form of Anumāna. The mīmāmsakas do not accept this view. They state that the knowledge acquired through Arthāpathi is not Anumāna as there is apparent contradiction in the finding.

The Bhaṭṭa mīmāmsakas consider Arthāpathi as a pramāṇa or source of valid knowledge, because it makes as assumption of some unperceived fact for explaining two explaining two things which are apparent by inconsistent.

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□त्र□□ी □□न□□ □□□/

□□□ह□ □त□□□□न□□□

□□□□□त्ति□ □□□ह्ल□□// [19]

In his śloka Vārtika (SV) Kumarila Bhatta illustrates several kinds of Arthapathi.

To Advaitha Vedānta Arthapathi is the assumption of an explanatory fact from a knowledge of the thing to be explained. Dharmar ājā dhridra considers and otherwise unintelligible fact to explain the paribhāṣakara explains that Arthāpathi or presumption is of two types such as:

1. Dṛṣṭārtha pathi or presumption from what is seen and
2. Srutarthāpathi or presumption from what is heard.

The Nyāya Darśana does not recognize arthāpathi as a pramāṇa. It is considered as a part of anumānam. Jayanta Bhatta holds that anumāna and arthāpathi are identical. Thus there is direct conflict between Dharmarāja and Jayanta Bhatta in particular, and Vedānta and Nyāya schools in general. The Advaita Vedānta Nyāya schools in general. The Advaita Vedānta considers arthāpathi as a useful pramāṇa. Being well versed in both the Nyāya and Vedānta Darśanas, Dharmarājā dhrīndra could establish a distinctive identify to arthāpathi as a valid pramāna in his Vedānta paribhāṣā.

3.4.6 Anupalabdhi (Abhava)

Dharmarājādhrīndra established Anupalabdhi as the sixth pramāṇa or means of valid knowledge in his treatise Vedānta Darśana accept Anupalabdhi or Abhava (non-apprehension) is accepted as a valid pramāṇa or means of valid knowledge in his treatise Vedānta paribhāṣa. Anupalabdhi is non apprehension in the philosophical point of view. The schools of Mīmāmsakas and Advaitha vedānta accepts anupalabdhi or abhava (Non-apprehension) as a valid pramāṇa. The Nyāya school and the Vaiśeṣika school both deny it the status of an independent pramāṇa. While Nyāya considers Anupalabdhi (Abhava) as a mode of perception (pratyakṣa), the Vaiśeṣika considers it as a form of anumāna (inference) and doesnot admit Anupalabdhi as a separate pramāṇa . The views of the Prabhakara School (Mīmāmsa) also denies pramāṇa status to Anupalabdhi. Anupalabdhi is a means of knowledge like the pratyakṣa or anumāna, because non-existence of something can be direct by perceived by the senses.

In his vedānta Paribhāṣa Dharmarajadharīndra defined. Anupalabdhi as the extraordinary cause of that apprehension of non-existence which is not due to knowledge as an instrument." [20]

[illegible]

(Vedānta paribhāṣa, p. 125)

According to the Nyāya Darśana the Anupalabdhi is only an aiding cause (Sādharaṇīkaraṇa).

The Paribhāṣakara accepts a four fold division of Abhāva or Anupalabdi.

Abhava or Anupalabdhi such as

1. Pragabhāva (previous abhāva)
2. Pradhamsābhava (destructional abhāva)
3. Atyantābhava (absolute abhāva)
4. Anyonyābhava (mutual abhāva)

The cognition of the above four kinds of non-existence is through non-apprehension so the vedānta philosophers argue that Anupalabdhi is a separate pramāṇa. In the vedānta paribhāṣa it is clearly stated that Anupalabdhi (non-apprehension or Abhāva (negation) is a separate pramāṇa which is independent of other pramāṇas.

3.5. Nyāya - Vaiśeṣika Views on *Pramāṇa*

Nyāya - Vaiśeṣika Darśanas are realistic and pessimistic in their outlook. In the earliest commentary on the sūtra of Gautama by Vatsyana the two systems are treated together as they are similar in many respects. In other works like Tarka Samgraha of Annambhaṭṭa and Kārikavali of Viswanatha also the two systems are treated together. By the 10th century AD the synthesis of the two Darśana systems had taken place. It is shown in the Sapta – Padarthi of Śivaditya. The word Nyāya is used in the sense of argumentation, and the word Vaiśeṣika is derived from viseṣa or difference. [21]

The Nyāya – sūtras of Gautama contains five chapters each of which is divided into two sections. Its Bhāṣya by Vatsyayana (400 AD) rejects many of the earlier views in the Nyāya Darśana. Though the Buddhist thinker Dinnaga (or Dignaga) attacked it, another equally famous thinker Udyotakara (AD 715) defended it in his Vartika. Vacaspati Miśra (AD 841) explained Vartika in his Ţika called Tātparya. Another great scholar Udayana commented on this text in his Tātparya – Ţika Parisuddhi.

The Basic text of Vaiśeṣika Darśana is Vaiśeṣika – sūtras of Kanāda, which consists of 10 chapters grouped into two sections. The commentary of this treatise called the Bhāṣya is by Prasasthapāda. There

are also other commentaries by later darśanikas. Udayana's (AD 984) Kusumāñjali and Sridhara's Kandali as well as Saṅkara Miśra is commentary of the Vaiśeṣika sūtras have also been widely accepted. In his Nyāya Manjari Jayanta Bhaṭṭa provides valid information on Gautama's sūtras. A new view on Nyāya philosophy was provided by Gangesa in his Tattva– cintamani in the 13th century. In fact, the dogmas of Nyāya developed their final shape after the observations of Gangesa. In the later centuries more commentaries and explanations were added. Reghunatha Siromani, the disciple of Gangesa wrote Dīdhiti which is the most famous among them. Gadadhara, who is well known for his scholasticism wrote a commentary on Dīdhiti which made the study of Nyāya popular all over India.

The chief difference between the Nyāya and the Vaiśeṣika systems is that while Vaiśeṣika looks at the world in the ontological point of view the Nyāya views it epistemologically. The Vaiśeṣika describes seven padarthas as the constituents to universe, but the Nyāya recognises sixteen padarthas. The seven padarthas of Vaiśeṣika are included in one of the padartha called prameya (the knowable) in the Nyāya. The first category in the list of 16 padarthas of the Nyāya is pramāṇa, and the second is prameya. In fact, the two terms pramāṇa and prameya are enough to clarify the viewpoint of the Nyāya Darśana.

The Vaiśeṣika recognises only two pramāṇas such as perception (pratyakṣa) and inference (anumāna). In contrast the Nyāya system accepts four pramāṇas pratyakṣa (perception) anumāna (inference), Śabda (verbal testimony) and upamāna (comparison).

Pratyakṣa (Perception)

3.6 The *Saṅkhya Yoga* Views on *Pramāṇa*

According to Patañjali perception (pratyakṣa) inference (anumāna) and verbal testimony (Śabda) are the three means of valid knowledge.

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(yoga sūtras, i. 7)

Perception occurs when the citta (mind) is affected by some external object through the sense organs.

The object is related to the direct mental modification by the senses. Yoga accepts the reality of the external objects. Only the form is modified when an object transforms into another. All objects in this universe have external forms which may undergo changes. Their external forms can be destroyed, but the object is not destroyed. it changes into its primary state of existence. The objects with senses have sensations due to the excitement of the senses. The sensations may be different. The citta

or mind receives the sensations produced by the impressions of the objects according to the influence of the guṇas.

The concept of pramāṇa is amost similar in the Saṅkhya and yoga systems of Indian philosophy. In the Saṅkhya point of view buddhi vṛtti (the function of the intellect is considered the cause of true knowledge. In his Saṅkhya kārika Īśvara Kṛṣṇa doesnot attempt to define pramāṇa or cause of true knowledge. Instead , he defines buddhi as:

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(Saṅkhya kārika kā 23.)[29]

Patañjali, in his yoga sūtra says that pramāṇa is the result of the working of citta (citta - vṛtti).

The Saṅkhya and Yoga systems, unlike the Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika Darśanas believe that perception is effected by means of a psychic sign, viz an image or idea (akāra) of the object in question. Only three pramāṇas are accepted by Saṅkhya – Yoga – perception (pratyakṣa), inference (anumāna) and verbal testimony (śabda). It seems that these pramāṇas were directly borrowed from the Nyāya - Vaiśeṣika Darśanas. The concepts of inference and verbal testimony are borrowed without any change, the pramāṇa of pratyakṣa has undergone differences.

In the pratyakṣa pramāṇa, the Saṅkhya – yoga represents an except opposition to that of Nyāya - Vaiśeṣika schools. For instance, validity and non-validity are considered as normal aspects of jñāna.[28] According to sat-karya vada the potential alone can become the actual. Whatever manifests itself at any time should be regarded as already there. So both are regarded as inherent in jñāna.

Saṅkhya Darśana recognises only three pramāṇas as modes of creating cognition or awareness. They are direct perception (pratyakṣa) logical reasoning or inference (Anumāna) and verbal tersting (Apta – vacana). Though there are other methods of proving knowledge, they are considered as included in these three basic modes. Truth can be established depending on the correctness of these sources of knowledge. Both Nasthika and Astika pramāṇas accept the truthfullness of pratyakṣa pramāṇa. Perception is caused by sense – object contact, which cannot be produced by inference or words. (Nyaya sūtra 1.1.4)

Perception arises from the contact of the soul, sense, mind and the object. (Vaiśeṣika sūtra 3.1.18). Mīmāmsa Darśanas consider perception as "the knowledge arising due to the contact of human senses with something that is present." (Mīmāmsa sūtra 1.1.4)

In Saṅkhya Darśana the term Dṛṣṭa is used to refer to perception, which is defined as direct cognition of an object through its contact with some sense – organ.

"Pratyakṣayādhyavasāyo dṛṣṭam." In other words, the knowledge produced by sense activity is called perception, The characteristics of perception are best illustrated by Vacaspati Miśra. For instance, Only a real object, whether it is an external or internal one, can produce perception. While objects like water, earth etc. are considered external objects. There are different perceptions like Laukika and Alaukika. ordinary perceptions are called Laukika while subtle (tanmatra) perceptions of Yogis are called Alaukika.

According to Kapilamuni perception is the cognition when the form of an object contacts with the buddhi. The Saṅkhya sūtra explains perception as the achievement of correct knowledge about a thing through its forms.

The definition of perception does not include the perception of the Yogis which comes under the category of Alaukika perception. The perception of yogis is extraordinary (Alaukika) because it may be insight into the past and future.

योगिनामबाह्यप्रत्यक्षत्वान्न दोषः [24]

(Saṅkhya sūtra 1.90)

Sāmkhya philosophy holds that effects exist in their causes. The state of spiritual delight experienced by the yogi does not make him insensible to causal objects. So the perception of the Yogi is also included under the definition of pratyakṣa.

3.7 The Mīmāmsa – *Vedānta* Views on the *Pramāṇa*

Mīmāmsa Darśana, as a branch of philosophy aims at solving the problem of the relations between speech and thought. It takes the view that language is independent of the person who uses it.

The psychological analysis contains valuable knowledge for modern semantics, or branch of liṅguistics dealing with the science of meaning. The knowledge provided by Jaimini regarding the laws of interpretation are highly significant even today. While the Pūrva – Mīmāmsa stresses the part of the vedas that deal with ritualistic importance, the Uttara Mīmāmsa discusses the Darśanas given in the Upaniṣads.

The main source of the theoretical foundation of the Mīmāmsa school is the Mīmāmsa school of Jaimini.

The vedānta school of philosophers hold the view that truth of knowledge consisted in its abādhitatva or non-contradictedness. We donot know that in future any experience can arise to falsify the present knowledge. Believing in the pragmatic view of knowledge, Advaita philosophy argues that cognition, even if false, can lead to the fulfillment of a purpose. The Advaita vedānta looks at prama as cognition having two characteristics such as uncontradiction and novelty. (abādhitatva and anadhigatatva).

Dharmaraja Adhvarindra offers two definitions of prama, one in which memory is included, and the other in which novelty in included, as essential features of valid knowledge.[25] Saṅkhya recognised the three sources of knowledge as valid such as pratyakṣā (perception), anumana (inference) and the testimony of the sacred books. To these three later philosophers added concept like upama (comparison) postulation and negation.

In the Advaita vedānta of Saṅkara different kinds of perception are accepted. When it is caused by the use of the senses it is called indriyajñānam. Inner perceptions which are not caused directly by the sense organs are also termed indriyajñānam. Perception may be savikalpaka (determinate) and Nirvikalpaka (indeterminate).

According to Vedānta Paribhāṣa, perception is the result of direct consciousness of objects through the senses. So in sense perceptions there is actual contact between the person who perceives and the object perceived. These contacts are of six different kinds such as

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It is doubtful whether the Advaita's theory of perception can be proved scientifically, but its metaphysical insight remains unquestionable. Consciousness is to be assumed as a primal fact, since it cannot be explained in terms of non-conscious factors. Advaita says that the perceived object has no existence as distinct from the knower. the meaning is that which forms the object is not different from that of the subject.

Bādārayaṇa summarised the essence of the Upaniṣads in his Brahma sūtra. The school of Vedānta in India had its roots in the Brahma sūtra. Later many scholars like Saṅkara, Rāmānuja, Madhava, Vallabha and Nimbaraka established various schools based on their commentaries

of the Brahma sūtra, and their own interpretations of the sūtras. The Golden Age of the Advaita Darśana dawned during the 9th and 10th centuries A.D. The Vedānta school has two main branches such as the Advaita school of Saṅkara and the Dvaita school of Madhva.

The core concept of Advaita philosophy is that the identify of the individual soul (Jīva Ātma) and universal soul (Parama Ātma) are one. The vacanas of the Upaniṣads make it clear.[25]

Madhavācharya also known as Ānandatīrtha who founded the Dvaita school of vedānta lived in the 13th century wrote 37 treatises known as Sarvamūla. Madhvacharya's doctrine of dualism finds distinction between the individual soul and universal soul or Brahma. This Dvaita school remained the chief rival to the Advaita Vedānta of Saṅkaracārya for many centuries.

Advaita Darśana later developed a distinction in the dogmas and as a result a branch called Viśiṣtaadvaita developed. It was a kind of qualified monism developed by Rāmānuja who held that Jivātma and Brahman were identical only in a special sense. This school does not believe in Saṅkara's theory of māya also. Rāmānuja's school of Viśiṣta advaita developed in the 11th and 12th centurirs. Other branches of vedānta school are vallabha's Suddhadvaita Nimbarata's Dvaitadvaita etc. The word Advaita means 'not two'. Saṅkara called his Darśana using a, term of

negative connotation, such as 'not two', become his doctrine stressed.' One reality without a second.

[illegible][26]

Saṅkaracārya was the disciple of Govindapāda, whose teacher was Gaudapāda. Thus Gaudapāda was the 'Paramaguru' of Saṅkara. He is believed to have lived in the 8th century A.D. The core of Advaita vedānta can be seen in Gaudapāda's Kārika of Māndūkya Upaniṣad. We can also find the seeds of Advaita Darśana in Bhartṛhari's writings and the works of Brahmadatta.

Advaita Darśana was later enriched by many disciples and followers of Saṅkara. Among them Padmapāda, the founder of Vivaraṇa school. and Vacaspathi Miśra, the founder of the Bhamati school are famous. Padmapāda composed a commentary of the Pāncapādika, a treatise on vedānta Darśana. Vacaspathi Miśra, who lived in the 9th century wrote Bhamati and Tattvasamikṣa. The Bhamati is a brilliant philosophical work, like the Saṅkara Bhāṣya of the Brahma sūtras.

According to MaxMuller, Saṅkara, the great ācharya of the Advaita Darśana lived between 788 and 820 AD. The greatest achievement of Saṅkara is that he could identify and popularise the monistic doctrine of the Upaniṣads and develop a systematic Advaita philosophy based on it.

In this task his beacon light was his teacher's teacher Gaudapāda. Saṅkara's valuable contributions to Indian Philosophy includes his commentaries or Bhāṣya on the Brahma sūtra of Bādarāyaṇa, The Bhagavatgīta Bhāṣya, the commentaries on all the principal Upaniṣads, Gaudapāda Kārika, Upadeśasahasri, Ātmabodha, Pāncikaraṇa, Tattvabodha, Advaita Pancaratna etc. The most important texts of the vedānta Darśana are The Brahma sūtra, the Upaniṣads, and the Bhagavatgīta, which are collectively called Prasthana – thraya or triple texts of the Vedānta.

Saṅkaracharya was a great scholar and a creative genius. He did not comment on the dogmatic principles of the Brahma sūtras of Bādarāyaṇa. Instead, his Bhāṣya illustrated his own creativity in interpreting the former texts. The Brahma- sūtra was the first attempt to systematise the philosophy of the Upaniṣads. It is also known as Vedānta – sūtra and Vedānta Darśana. The treatisse has four chapters. The first chapter explains the doctrine of Brāhman its nature and relation with the individual soul or Jīvātma. The second chapter called Avirodha answers the criticism raised by the opponents of Advaita. The third chapter Sādhana deals with methods of meditation and the fourth chapter phala is on the results of following the Advaita path towards deliverence. Each

chapter contains four adhikaraṇas on the sūtra in general, which is full of aphorisms of deep spiritual knowledge and insight.

The Bhagavat – Gīta, the most sacred book of Hinduism comes under the category of smṛti texts. It has 18 sections and is a part of the longest epic, Mahābhāratha of Vedavyāsa. The Bhagavat – Gīta also contains the philosophy of the Upaniṣads. As in the Ṛgveda all these spiritual texts contain the doctrine that "Reality is one, though it is known by different names."

एकं सद्विप्रा बहुधा वदन्त्यग्निं यमं मातरिश्वानमाहुः॥ [27]

Saṅkara's contribution to Advaita philosophy is vivarta – vada or māyā – vāda, which explains that the phenomenal world is one of illusions. Saṅkara could replace the old vedantic view that "the world was real even before creation", and "there was only sat (being) at the beginning.

सदेव सोम्य इदमग्र आसीत् एकमेव अद्वितीयम् । [28]

Advaita vedānta aims at achieving pure consciousness which is without difference and object. Yathartha Jñāna or true knowledge is secured by the pramāṇa, which vedānta considers as the source of knowledge. Advaita Darśana recognises six pramāṇa which are pratyakṣa (Perception, Anumāna (inference), Śabda or agama (verbal testimony),

Upamāna (comparison), arthapathi (presumption) and Anupalabdhi (non-apprehension).

Dharmaraj dvarīndra's Vedānta - paribhāṣa deals with both epistemology and metaphysics of Advaita Darśana. Following the school of padmapada's Advaita vedānta Dharmarāja discusses the sources of valid knowledge or pramāṇa in the first six chapters of the treatise. In the next two chapters he examines the philosophical doctrines relating to the topic such as Viṣaya and Prayojana.

There are three sections in the Vedānta - paribhāṣa. The first section deals with pramāṇas which are means of securing valid knowledge. The second section discusses the subject of Viṣaya and the third section is on Prayojana.

The section on pramāṇa contains six chapters in which the author Dharmarāja analyses the pramāṇas in the light of the Advaita vedānta. A number of commentaries have been written on the Vedānta - paribhāṣa of Dharmarāja. Among them the most famous are the Vedānta – Sikhamani of Rāmakṛṣṇa Adhvarīn, who is the son of Dharmarāja, and Vedānta - maṇiprabha of Amaradāsa.

The doctrines of Advaita Darśana are built on the theistic principles of the vedās, the Upaniṣads and the sūtras. Saṅkara declared that his

system of Advaita is a synthesis of the triple texts. (The Upaniṣads, the Bhagavat Gīta and the Brahma sūtras).

An important feature of Advaita is that like the teachings of western philosophers like Aristotle, Kant and Hegal, it is highly logical and based on reason. The doctrine of Advaita declares that mere reason and senses cannot realise reality. In theistic matters spiritual experience is the final authority.

The central doctrines of Advaita Darśana or philosophy of vedānta are the following:

1. The Brahma is the Ultimate Reality.

2. The Reality sun in the world is only apparent or Mithya.

3. The individual soul or ātma is not distinct from the universal soul or Brahma.

William James observed that the Advaita system of Saṅkara is "the paragon of all monistic systems.[29] In Māndukya Upaniṣad Brahma is described as:

unseen, ungraspable, unthinkable, unnamable, the peaceful, the benign and the non-dual." [30]

A similar description of Brahma is giver by Yajñavalkya to his disciple Gargi, in the Bṛhadāraṇyaka Upaniṣad. [31]

Brahma is considered an impersonal transcendent being which is unthinkable by mind. It is pure consciousness, eternal and does not undergo any change. (Vikara). It is not a product (kriya) and has no genus (jati) or quality (guṇa). It is existence itself. It is infinite because it is not limited by any object. It is neither a subject nor an object. Though Brahma can be known indirectly, it can be realised directly only through spiritual experience. Saṅkara says that Brahma appears an absolute nothing only to Mandabuddhi (or foolish minds). Advaita states that Brahma is the Reality of the world. It is the real of the real. Saṅkara, knowing well that Brahma is undefinable, tries to offer two definitions of it in Svarūpa lakshana and Tatastha lakshna. It says that Brahma is existence, knowledge and Bliss (sat – cit – ānanda), which are not distinct. Hence it becomes/clear that the pramāṇa cannot be a yardstick to measure the vastness of Brahma.

3.8 The Relevance of *Pramāṇa* in Asthika *Darśana*s

The Nyāya system is divided into two schools:- The Prachina Nyāya and the Navya Nyāya. It was Gangeśa who established the modern schools of Nyāya in the 10th century A.D. The dogmas of the modern school are contained in Gangśa's Tattvacintāmaṇi. Among the 16 topics discussed in the Nyāya sūtras by Gautama the first category is Pramāṇa as a source of knowledge. The system of Nyāya recognizes 4 categories

of Pramāṇa such as perception, inference, śabda and upamāna (comparison). The Nyāya system, being realistic, hold that objects of knowledge exist independently of the knower's mind, but ideas and feelings depend upon the mind. Knowledge is like light. Its manifestation reveals objects by removing the darkness of ignorance.

There are two kinds of knowledge – anubhav (presentative knowledge) and smṛti (representative knowledge) Prama is the valid preventative knowledge. If it is invalid, it is called Aprama, in which doubts and errors are included. Yathartha is definite and unerring knowledge. Successful and fruitful activity is the result of true knowledge or Pravritti Sāmarthya. Practical failure occurs due to false knowledge.

The Nyāya Darśana defines perception as immediate cognition. The term prathyakṣa pramaṇā means definite cognition produced by the contact of the sense – object. It is true or unerring. Perception may be ordinary (laukika) or extraordinary (alaukika). While the former needs sense – object contact, the latter is free of it. Perception can also be bahya (external) or mānasa (internal). Ordinary

Perception can be of six kinds – visual, auditory, tactual, gustatory (of lāste) offactory (of smell) or of the mind (mānasa).

There are three kinds of Extra ordinary perception (Alaukika Pratyakṣa)

1. Samanya - lakṣana, 2. Jñana - lakṣaṇa and 3. Yogaja - lakṣana.

The first gives us knowledge of the class of the object, the second refers to knowledge of complication and the third is the intuition of the Yogis.

Pratyakṣa can also be either Nirvikalpa Pratyakṣa or Savikalpa Pratyakṣa while the former refers to in determinate or indefinite perception, the latter signifies determinate or definite perception.

The second Pramāṇa is inference or Anumāna. The Sanskrit word 'Anu' means infer and māna means 'knowledge'. So it means perception due to inference. There are two kinds of inference – Swartha – anumana (inference for oneself) and Parartha – anumana (inference) for others. The Parartha – anumana involves five steps called Pansavayavi. The five stages are Pratijñā, hetu or liṅga, Vyapti, upanaya and nigamana. For eg: if fire is not seen, but smoke is perceived, the reason is inferred. In short, while the Aristotilian logic of the west is deductive, the Nyāya inference is inductive and deductive.

The third pramāṇa is śabda or verbal testimony. According to the Nyāya Darśana, the testimony of a trust worthy person (Aptavacana) can be accepted as a means of knowledge. According to the dogmas to Nyāya Darśana the vedas are sources of valid knowledge, because they are the words of God. Scriptures are vaidika and its author is infallible, but the ordinary persons (laukika) may make mistakes or errors.

The fourth Pramāṇa discussed by Nyāya Darśana is comparison (upamāna). It is useful because it shows the connection between a name and something signified by that name. In the statement that 'it is like a cow' the animal is compared to the concept of a cow. So the person to whom it is told, can recognized it when he sees it.

Thus the system of Nyāya accepts sources of knowledge based on reason as well as sense experience. It also accepts extraordinary perceptions or spiritual intuitions of Yogis and Ṛṣis. But the materialistic Darśana of Cārvaka accepts perception only as source of valid knowledge. In rejects inference as well as verbal testimony and comparison as sources of knowledge.

According to the dogmas of Vaiśeṣika Darśana all the composite objects of the universe are composed of atoms of earth, water, air and fire. Therefore the Vaiśeṣika view of creation of the world is called atomism or paramananuvāda. The substances such as ether, time mind, space and

earth as well as matter are eternal. They are neither created nor destroyed. The physical world is created and destroyed by God according to the moral quality of individual souls.

The Saṅkhya Darśana, on the other hand recognizes only two kinds of ultimate reality, namely prakṛti and puruṣa. The universe is made up of twenty four principles; the first elements, thirteen organs and five tanmatras in addition.

The Yoga Darśana advocates Raja Yoga which is a practical suggestion to bring under control the energy of the soul. For that one has to control the body and the mind, for which a plan of physical and mental discipline is worked out. There are eight steps to be followed by a Yogi – Yama (Non-violence), Niyama (cleanliness) Asana (posture), Pranayama (Breath control) Pratyahara (sense control), Dhārana (concentration), Dhyana (meditation) and Samadhi (Super consciousness).

The term Mīmāmsa means investigation. Ṛṣi Jaimini founded the Indian system of Mīmāmsa Darśanam. Shabara Swami wrote commentary on Jaimini's Mīmāmsa sūtras. Mīmāmsa philosophy does note accept God as creator protector or destroyed of the world. The vedas are considered the only authority or verbal testimony to guide human life. In addition perception and inference are accepted on pramāṇa's or sources of knowledge by Jaimini. The Upaniṣads are accepted as interpretations

of vedic texts, and the Mīmāmsa school recognizes a six fold principle to interpret a philosophical text.

The system called Vedānta deals with the nature and knowledge of Brahman. The basic principles of vedānta are contained in the triple texts, such as the Upaniṣads, the Brahma sūtra of Bādarāyaṇa and the Bhagavat Gīta which is part of the epic Mahābhārata. Saṅkara Acharya founded the school of Advaita Vedānta, which advocates absolutism and spiritual monism. Only Brahman is considered the Absolute reality or God. The individual souls or Jīvātma, and the physical world are phenomenal appearances. Knowledge is the means of attaining liberation from the bondage of life and death. Shravana, Manana and Nidhidhyasana (dhyana) are necessary for attaining liberation or mokṣa.

3.9 Resume

Methods or means of requiring knowledge or awareness are extremely important in India Philosophy. However, various darśanas follow different number of such means called Pramāṇās. According to the tenets of Nyāya darśanas the instruments for valid knowledge are four - namely, pratyakṣa, Anumāna, Upamāna and Śabda. The basic factors for knowledge, according to Indian darśanas are Prama and Pramāṇā. The Nyāya view of jñāna or knowledge is quite opposite to that of the Sānkhya view of the vedānta view agrees with that of the Sānkhya's.

The term prama refers ti valid knowledge. According to the Nyāya darśanas it is faithful presentation of an object pratyakṣa is perception or definite cognition produced by the contact between sense and object. Anumāna is the process of reasoning through inference. It is accepted as a valid means of knowledge by all systems of Indian Philosophy except the Nāstika darśanas of Cārvāka.

Upamāna is a means of valid knowledge accepted by Nyāya and the mīmāmsa systems. The Cārvāka Vaiśeṣika, Sānkhya and Yoga systems do not recognize it as valid. The Vaiśeṣikas considers Upamāna are category of Anumāna. Though Advaita vedānta gives independent Pramāṇā status to Upamāna, other schools of vedānta do not recognize it. Viśiṣta advaita includes Upamāna under perception, anumāna or śabda according to its context.

Śabda or agama by all systems except Cārvāka and Vaiśeṣikas. Prabhakara Bhaṭṭa accepts only scriptural words as Śabda, but Kumarila Bhaṭṭa accepts the words of reliable persons also as Śabda.

Arthāpatti is explained as presumption or supposition, which is different from inference or Anumāna. It is different from Śabda or verbal authority as well as Upamāna or comparison also. Arthāpatti is knowledge acquired by means of imagination.

Anupalabdhi is also called Abhava. It is recognized as a means to valid knowledge by only Kumarila Bhaṭṭa's mīmāmsa and all systems of vedānta. Nyāya considers it as a mode of pratyakṣa, the Vaiśeṣikas regards it as a kind of Anumāna. The schools of Prabhakara also denies pramāṇās to Anupalabdhi.

Unlike the native sources of religious philosophy, in India Christian theology had not paid enough attention to epistemological questions till recently. Epistemology is called theory of knowledge because it leads to metaphysics or theory of reality, as well as theology. Attempts have been made to point out that the pramānas of Indian philosophy are sources of valid knowledge in Indian Christian theology also.[32] However, these studies by Indian Christian theologians do not deal with all the six pramānas of Indian Philosophy and their possible use as Christian Pramanas.[33] The great richness of Indian Philosophy and its epistemology has been included as part o the Christian heritage, and a Christian theological method also has been formulated accordingly.

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